



University
of Manitoba

Matrix methods – QR factorisation & SVD

MATH 2740 – Mathematics of Data Science – Unit U04

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The University of Manitoba campuses are located on original lands of Anishinaabeg, Ininew, Anisininew, Dakota and Dene peoples, and on the National Homeland of the Red River Métis. We respect the Treaties that were made on these territories, we acknowledge the harms and mistakes of the past, and we dedicate ourselves to move forward in partnership with Indigenous communities in a spirit of Reconciliation and collaboration.

Outline

The QR decomposition

The SVD (singular values decomposition)

Matrix factorisations

Matrix factorisations are popular because they allow to perform some computations more easily

There are several different types of factorisations. Here, we study just the QR factorisation (useful for many least squares problems) and SVD (useful in many contexts)



The QR decomposition

The SVD (singular values decomposition)

The QR decomposition

Orthogonality and projections

The Gram-Schmidt orthogonalisation process

Orthogonal matrices

The QR factorisation & Least squares

Definition 57 (Orthogonal set of vectors)

The set of vectors $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \dots, \mathbf{v}_k\} \in \mathbb{R}^n$ is an **orthogonal set** if

$$\forall i, j = 1, \dots, k, \quad i \neq j \implies \mathbf{v}_i \bullet \mathbf{v}_j = 0$$

Theorem 58

$\{\mathbf{v}_1, \dots, \mathbf{v}_k\} \in \mathbb{R}^n$ with $\forall i, \mathbf{v}_i \neq \mathbf{0}$, orthogonal set $\implies \{\mathbf{v}_1, \dots, \mathbf{v}_k\} \in \mathbb{R}^n$ linearly independent

Definition 59 (Orthogonal basis)

Let S be a basis of the subspace $W \subset \mathbb{R}^n$ composed of an orthogonal set of vectors. We say S is an **orthogonal basis** of W

Proof of Theorem 58

Assume $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \dots, \mathbf{v}_k\}$ orthogonal set with $\mathbf{v}_i \neq \mathbf{0}$ for all $i = 1, \dots, k$. Recall $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \dots, \mathbf{v}_k\}$ is LI if

$$c_1 \mathbf{v}_1 + \dots + c_k \mathbf{v}_k = \mathbf{0} \iff c_1 = \dots = c_k = 0$$

So assume $c_1, \dots, c_k \in \mathbb{R}$ are s.t. $c_1 \mathbf{v}_1 + \dots + c_k \mathbf{v}_k = \mathbf{0}$. Recall that $\forall \mathbf{x} \in \mathbb{R}^k$, $\mathbf{0}_k \bullet \mathbf{x} = 0$. So for some $\mathbf{v}_i \in \{\mathbf{v}_1, \dots, \mathbf{v}_k\}$

$$\begin{aligned} 0 &= \mathbf{0} \bullet \mathbf{v}_i \\ &= (c_1 \mathbf{v}_1 + \dots + c_k \mathbf{v}_k) \bullet \mathbf{v}_i \\ &= c_1 \mathbf{v}_1 \bullet \mathbf{v}_i + \dots + c_k \mathbf{v}_k \bullet \mathbf{v}_i \end{aligned} \tag{1}$$

As $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \dots, \mathbf{v}_k\}$ orthogonal, $\mathbf{v}_j \bullet \mathbf{v}_i = 0$ when $i \neq j$, (1) reduces to

$$c_i \mathbf{v}_i \bullet \mathbf{v}_i = 0 \iff c_i \|\mathbf{v}_i\|^2 = 0$$

As $\mathbf{v}_i \neq \mathbf{0}$ for all i , $\|\mathbf{v}_i\| \neq 0$ and so $c_i = 0$. This is true for all i , hence the result □

Example – Vectors of the standard basis of $\mathbb{R}^3$

For $\mathbb{R}^3$, we denote

$$\mathbf{i} = \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{j} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} \quad \text{and} \quad \mathbf{k} = \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix}$$

($\mathbb{R}^k$ for $k > 3$, we denote them $\mathbf{e}_i$)

Clearly, $\{\mathbf{i}, \mathbf{j}\}$, $\{\mathbf{i}, \mathbf{k}\}$, $\{\mathbf{j}, \mathbf{k}\}$ and $\{\mathbf{i}, \mathbf{j}, \mathbf{k}\}$ orthogonal sets. The standard basis vectors are also $\neq \mathbf{0}$, so the sets are LI. And

$$\{\mathbf{i}, \mathbf{j}, \mathbf{k}\}$$

is an orthogonal basis of $\mathbb{R}^3$ since it spans $\mathbb{R}^3$ and is LI

$$c_1 \mathbf{i} + c_2 \mathbf{j} + c_3 \mathbf{k} = c_1 \begin{pmatrix} 1 \\ 0 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} + c_2 \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 1 \\ 0 \end{pmatrix} + c_3 \begin{pmatrix} 0 \\ 0 \\ 1 \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} c_1 \\ c_2 \\ c_3 \end{pmatrix}$$

Orthonormal version of things

Definition 60 (Orthonormal set)

The set of vectors $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \dots, \mathbf{v}_k\} \in \mathbb{R}^n$ is an **orthonormal set** if it is an orthogonal set and furthermore

$$\forall i = 1, \dots, k, \quad \|\mathbf{v}_i\| = 1$$

Definition 61 (Orthonormal basis)

A basis of the subspace $W \subset \mathbb{R}^n$ is an **orthonormal basis** if the vectors composing it are an orthonormal set

$\{\mathbf{v}_1, \dots, \mathbf{v}_k\} \in \mathbb{R}^n$ is orthonormal if

$$\mathbf{v}_i \bullet \mathbf{v}_j = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } i = j \\ 0 & \text{otherwise} \end{cases}$$

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What this aims to do is to construct an orthogonal basis for a subspace $W \subset \mathbb{R}^n$

To do this, we use the *Gram-Schmidt orthogonalisation process*, which turns a basis of W into an orthogonal basis of W

Projections

Definition 62 (Orthogonal projection onto a subspace)

$W \subset \mathbb{R}^n$ a subspace and $\{\mathbf{u}_1, \dots, \mathbf{u}_k\}$ an orthogonal basis of W . $\forall \mathbf{v} \in \mathbb{R}^n$, the **orthogonal projection** of $\mathbf{v}$ onto W is

$$\text{proj}_W(\mathbf{v}) = \frac{\mathbf{u}_1 \bullet \mathbf{v}}{\|\mathbf{u}_1\|^2} \mathbf{u}_1 + \dots + \frac{\mathbf{u}_k \bullet \mathbf{v}}{\|\mathbf{u}_k\|^2} \mathbf{u}_k$$

Definition 63 (Component orthogonal to a subspace)

$W \subset \mathbb{R}^n$ a subspace and $\{\mathbf{u}_1, \dots, \mathbf{u}_k\}$ an orthogonal basis of W . $\forall \mathbf{v} \in \mathbb{R}^n$, the **component** of $\mathbf{v}$ orthogonal to W is

$$\text{perp}_W(\mathbf{v}) = \mathbf{v} - \text{proj}_W(\mathbf{v})$$

Theorem 64 (Gram-Schmidt orthogonalisation process)

$W \subset \mathbb{R}^n$ a subset and $\{\mathbf{x}_1, \dots, \mathbf{x}_k\}$ a basis of W . Let

$$\mathbf{v}_1 = \mathbf{x}_1$$

$$\mathbf{v}_2 = \mathbf{x}_2 - \frac{\mathbf{v}_1 \bullet \mathbf{x}_2}{\|\mathbf{v}_1\|^2} \mathbf{v}_1$$

$$\mathbf{v}_3 = \mathbf{x}_3 - \frac{\mathbf{v}_1 \bullet \mathbf{x}_3}{\|\mathbf{v}_1\|^2} \mathbf{v}_1 - \frac{\mathbf{v}_2 \bullet \mathbf{x}_3}{\|\mathbf{v}_2\|^2} \mathbf{v}_2$$

$$\vdots$$

$$\mathbf{v}_k = \mathbf{x}_k - \frac{\mathbf{v}_1 \bullet \mathbf{x}_k}{\|\mathbf{v}_1\|^2} \mathbf{v}_1 - \dots - \frac{\mathbf{v}_{k-1} \bullet \mathbf{x}_k}{\|\mathbf{v}_{k-1}\|^2} \mathbf{v}_{k-1}$$

and

$$W_1 = \text{span}(\mathbf{x}_1), W_2 = \text{span}(\mathbf{x}_1, \mathbf{x}_2), \dots, W_k = \text{span}(\mathbf{x}_1, \dots, \mathbf{x}_k)$$

Then $\forall i = 1, \dots, k, \{\mathbf{v}_1, \dots, \mathbf{v}_i\}$ orthogonal basis for W_i

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Theorem 65

Let $Q \in \mathcal{M}_{mn}$. The columns of Q form an orthonormal set if and only if

$$Q^T Q = \mathbb{I}_n$$

Definition 66 (Orthogonal matrix)

$Q \in \mathcal{M}_n$ is an **orthogonal matrix** if its columns form an orthonormal set

So $Q \in \mathcal{M}_n$ orthogonal if $Q^T Q = \mathbb{I}$, i.e., $Q^T = Q^{-1}$

Theorem 67 (NSC for orthogonality)

$$Q \in \mathcal{M}_n \text{ orthogonal} \iff Q^{-1} = Q^T$$

Orthogonal matrices “encode” isometries

Theorem 68 (Orthogonal matrices “encode” isometries)

Let $Q \in \mathcal{M}_n$. TFAE

1. *Q orthogonal*
2. $\forall \mathbf{x} \in \mathbb{R}^n, \|Q\mathbf{x}\| = \|\mathbf{x}\|$
3. $\forall \mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y} \in \mathbb{R}^n, Q\mathbf{x} \bullet Q\mathbf{y} = \mathbf{x} \bullet \mathbf{y}$

Proof of Theorem 68

1 $\implies$ 3: Assume Q is orthogonal. Then $Q^T Q = \mathbb{I}_n$, so

$$Q\mathbf{x} \bullet Q\mathbf{y} = (Q\mathbf{x})^T (Q\mathbf{y}) = \mathbf{x}^T Q^T Q \mathbf{y} = \mathbf{x}^T \mathbb{I}_n \mathbf{y} = \mathbf{x} \bullet \mathbf{y}$$

3 $\implies$ 1: Assume $Q\mathbf{x} \bullet Q\mathbf{y} = \mathbf{x} \bullet \mathbf{y} \forall \mathbf{x}, \mathbf{y}$. For standard basis vectors $\mathbf{e}_i, \mathbf{e}_j$:

$$(Q\mathbf{e}_i) \bullet (Q\mathbf{e}_j) = \mathbf{e}_i \bullet \mathbf{e}_j = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } i = j \\ 0 & \text{if } i \neq j \end{cases}$$

Since $Q\mathbf{e}_i$ is the i -th column of Q , the columns of Q are orthonormal, so Q is orthogonal.

3 $\implies$ 2: Assume $Q\mathbf{x} \bullet Q\mathbf{y} = \mathbf{x} \bullet \mathbf{y}$. Letting $\mathbf{y} = \mathbf{x}$ gives

$$\|Q\mathbf{x}\|^2 = Q\mathbf{x} \bullet Q\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{x} \bullet \mathbf{x} = \|\mathbf{x}\|^2 \implies \|Q\mathbf{x}\| = \|\mathbf{x}\|$$

2 $\implies$ 3: Assume $\|Q\mathbf{z}\| = \|\mathbf{z}\|$ for all $\mathbf{z}$. Using $\mathbf{z} = \mathbf{x} + \mathbf{y}$, we expand $\|Q(\mathbf{x} + \mathbf{y})\|^2 = \|\mathbf{x} + \mathbf{y}\|^2$:

$$\|Q\mathbf{x}\|^2 + 2Q\mathbf{x} \bullet Q\mathbf{y} + \|Q\mathbf{y}\|^2 = \|\mathbf{x}\|^2 + 2\mathbf{x} \bullet \mathbf{y} + \|\mathbf{y}\|^2$$

Since $\|Q\mathbf{x}\| = \|\mathbf{x}\|$ and $\|Q\mathbf{y}\| = \|\mathbf{y}\|$, we get $Q\mathbf{x} \bullet Q\mathbf{y} = \mathbf{x} \bullet \mathbf{y}$. □

Theorem 69

Let $Q \in \mathcal{M}_n$ be orthogonal. Then

- 1. The rows of Q form an orthonormal set*
- 2. Q^{-1} orthogonal*
- 3. $\det Q = \pm 1$*
- 4. $\forall \lambda \in \sigma(Q), |\lambda| = 1$*
- 5. If $Q_2 \in \mathcal{M}_n$ also orthogonal, then QQ_2 orthogonal*

Proof of 1 and 2 in Theorem 69

1. The rows of Q form an orthonormal set

- ▶ By definition, Q is orthogonal $\iff Q^T Q = \mathbb{I}_n$
- ▶ Since Q is square, $Q^T Q = \mathbb{I}_n \implies Q^{-1} = Q^T \implies QQ^T = \mathbb{I}_n$
- ▶ This is equivalent to $(Q^T)^T Q^T = \mathbb{I}_n$, so the columns of Q^T (the rows of Q) are orthonormal □

2. Q^{-1} is orthogonal

- ▶ We must show that $(Q^{-1})^T Q^{-1} = \mathbb{I}_n$
- ▶ Using $Q^{-1} = Q^T$, we get $(Q^{-1})^T Q^{-1} = (Q^T)^T Q^T = QQ^T = \mathbb{I}_n$
- ▶ Thus Q^{-1} is an orthogonal matrix □

Proof of 3 and 5 in Theorem 69

3. $\det Q = \pm 1$

- ▶ We have $Q^T Q = \mathbb{I}_n$. Taking determinant on both sides

$$\det(Q^T Q) = \det(\mathbb{I}_n) = 1$$

- ▶ Using $\det(AB) = \det(A)\det(B)$, we get $\det(Q^T)\det(Q) = 1$
- ▶ From the general property $\det(A^T) = \det(A)$, it follows that $(\det(Q))^2 = 1$, so $\det Q = \pm 1$ □

5. If $Q_2 \in \mathcal{M}_n$ also orthogonal, then QQ_2 orthogonal

- ▶ We must show that $(QQ_2)^T(QQ_2) = \mathbb{I}_n$
- ▶ $(QQ_2)^T(QQ_2) = Q_2^T Q^T QQ_2 = Q_2^T (Q^T Q) Q_2$
- ▶ Since Q is orthogonal, $Q^T Q = \mathbb{I}_n$, so the expression becomes $Q_2^T \mathbb{I}_n Q_2 = Q_2^T Q_2$
- ▶ Since Q_2 is orthogonal, $Q_2^T Q_2 = \mathbb{I}_n$ □

Proof of 4 in Theorem 69

$$4. \forall \lambda \in \sigma(Q), |\lambda| = 1$$

Let λ be an eigenvalue of $Q \in \mathcal{M}_n$ orthogonal, i.e., $\exists \mathbb{R}^n \ni \mathbf{x} \neq \mathbf{0}$ s.t.

$$Q\mathbf{x} = \lambda\mathbf{x}$$

Take the norm on both sides

$$\|Q\mathbf{x}\| = \|\lambda\mathbf{x}\|$$

From 2 in Theorem 68, $\|Q\mathbf{x}\| = \|\mathbf{x}\|$ and from the properties of norms, $\|\lambda\mathbf{x}\| = |\lambda| \|\mathbf{x}\|$, so we have

$$\|Q\mathbf{x}\| = \|\lambda\mathbf{x}\| \iff \|\mathbf{x}\| = |\lambda| \|\mathbf{x}\| \iff 1 = |\lambda|$$

(we can divide by $\|\mathbf{x}\|$ since $\mathbf{x} \neq \mathbf{0}$ as an eigenvector)



The QR decomposition

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The QR factorisation

Theorem 70

Let $A \in \mathcal{M}_{mn}$ with LI columns. Then A can be factored as

$$A = QR$$

where $Q \in \mathcal{M}_{mn}$ has orthonormal columns and $R \in \mathcal{M}_n$ is nonsingular upper triangular

Back to least squares

So what was the point of all that..?

Theorem 71 (Least squares with QR factorisation)

$A \in \mathcal{M}_{mn}$ with linearly independent columns, $\mathbf{b} \in \mathbb{R}^m$. If $A = QR$ is a QR factorisation of A , then the unique least squares solution $\tilde{\mathbf{x}}$ of $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$ is

$$\tilde{\mathbf{x}} = R^{-1}Q^T\mathbf{b}$$

Proof of Theorem 71

A has LI columns so

- ▶ least squares $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$ has unique solution $\tilde{\mathbf{x}} = (A^T A)^{-1} A^T \mathbf{b}$
- ▶ by Theorem 70, A can be written as $A = QR$ with $Q \in \mathcal{M}_{mn}$ with orthonormal columns and $R \in \mathcal{M}_n$ nonsingular and upper triangular

So

$$\begin{aligned} A^T A \tilde{\mathbf{x}} &= A^T \mathbf{b} \implies (QR)^T QR \tilde{\mathbf{x}} = (QR)^T \mathbf{b} \\ &\implies R^T Q^T QR \tilde{\mathbf{x}} = R^T Q^T \mathbf{b} \\ &\implies R^T \mathbb{I}_n R \tilde{\mathbf{x}} = R^T Q^T \mathbf{b} \\ &\implies R^T R \tilde{\mathbf{x}} = R^T Q^T \mathbf{b} \\ &\implies (R^T)^{-1} R \tilde{\mathbf{x}} = (R^T)^{-1} R^T Q^T \mathbf{b} \\ &\implies R \tilde{\mathbf{x}} = Q^T \mathbf{b} \\ &\implies \tilde{\mathbf{x}} = R^{-1} Q^T \mathbf{b} \quad \square \end{aligned}$$

Other applications of the QR decomposition

Focus here on least squares, but QR decomposition fundamental tool in numerical linear algebra with other important applications

- ▶ **Solving linear systems:** to solve $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$ for a non-singular square matrix A , write $QR\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b} \implies R\mathbf{x} = Q^T\mathbf{b}$. Since R is upper triangular, this can be quickly solved by back-substitution. This method is often more numerically stable than Gaussian elimination (called the LU decomposition)
- ▶ **Computing eigenvalues:** the **QR algorithm** is a standard method for calculating the eigenvalues of a matrix. It uses the iterative process $A_k = Q_k R_k$ and $A_{k+1} = R_k Q_k$. Under certain conditions, A_k converges to an upper triangular matrix whose diagonal entries are the eigenvalues
- ▶ **Computing determinants:** if $A = QR$, then $\det(A) = \det(Q)\det(R)$. Since Q is orthogonal, $\det(Q) = \pm 1$, and since R is upper triangular, $\det(R)$ is simply the product of its diagonal entries



The QR decomposition

The SVD (singular values decomposition)

The SVD (singular values decomposition)

Singular values

The SVD

An application of the SVD – Image compression

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Summary – Least squares methods

Matrix factorisations (continued)

The singular value decomposition (known mostly by its acronym, SVD) is yet another type of factorisation/decomposition..

Singular values

Definition 72 (Singular value)

Let $A \in \mathcal{M}_{mn}(\mathbb{R})$. The **singular values** of A are the real numbers

$$\sigma_1 \geq \sigma_2 \geq \cdots \sigma_n \geq 0$$

that are the square roots of the eigenvalues of $A^T A$

Singular values are real and nonnegative?

Recall that $\forall A \in \mathcal{M}_{mn}$, $A^T A$ is symmetric

Claim 1. Real symmetric matrices have real eigenvalues

Proof. $A \in \mathcal{M}_n(\mathbb{R})$ symmetric and $(\lambda, \mathbf{v})$ eigenpair of A , i.e, $A\mathbf{v} = \lambda\mathbf{v}$. Taking the complex conjugate, $\overline{A\mathbf{v}} = \overline{\lambda\mathbf{v}}$

Since $A \in \mathcal{M}_n(\mathbb{R})$, $\overline{A} = A$ ($z = \bar{z} \iff z \in \mathbb{R}$)

So

$$A\bar{\mathbf{v}} = \overline{A\mathbf{v}} = \overline{\lambda\mathbf{v}} = \overline{\lambda}\bar{\mathbf{v}} = \bar{\lambda}\bar{\mathbf{v}}$$

i.e., if $(\lambda, \mathbf{v})$ eigenpair, $(\bar{\lambda}, \bar{\mathbf{v}})$ also eigenpair

Still assuming $A \in \mathcal{M}_n(\mathbb{R})$ symmetric and $(\lambda, \mathbf{v})$ eigenpair of A and using what we just proved (that $(\bar{\lambda}, \bar{\mathbf{v}})$ also eigenpair), take transposes

$$\begin{aligned} A\bar{\mathbf{v}} = \bar{\lambda}\bar{\mathbf{v}} &\iff (A\bar{\mathbf{v}})^T = (\bar{\lambda}\bar{\mathbf{v}})^T \\ &\iff \bar{\mathbf{v}}^T A^T = \bar{\lambda}\bar{\mathbf{v}}^T \\ &\iff \bar{\mathbf{v}}^T A = \bar{\lambda}\bar{\mathbf{v}}^T \quad [A \text{ symmetric}] \end{aligned}$$

Let us now compute $\lambda(\bar{\mathbf{v}} \bullet \mathbf{v})$. We have

$$\begin{aligned} \lambda(\bar{\mathbf{v}} \bullet \mathbf{v}) &= \lambda \bar{\mathbf{v}}^T \mathbf{v} = \bar{\mathbf{v}}^T (\lambda \mathbf{v}) \\ &= \bar{\mathbf{v}}^T (A\mathbf{v}) = (\bar{\mathbf{v}}^T A) \mathbf{v} \\ &= (\bar{\lambda} \bar{\mathbf{v}}^T) \mathbf{v} = \bar{\lambda}(\bar{\mathbf{v}} \bullet \mathbf{v}) \\ &\iff (\lambda - \bar{\lambda})(\bar{\mathbf{v}} \bullet \mathbf{v}) = 0 \end{aligned}$$

We have shown

$$(\lambda - \bar{\lambda})(\bar{\mathbf{v}} \bullet \mathbf{v}) = 0$$

Let

$$\mathbf{v} = \begin{pmatrix} a_1 + ib_1 \\ \vdots \\ a_n + ib_n \end{pmatrix}$$

Then

$$\bar{\mathbf{v}} = \begin{pmatrix} a_1 - ib_1 \\ \vdots \\ a_n - ib_n \end{pmatrix}$$

So

$$\bar{\mathbf{v}} \bullet \mathbf{v} = (a_1^2 + b_1^2) + \cdots + (a_n^2 + b_n^2)$$

But $\mathbf{v}$ eigenvector is $\neq \mathbf{0}$, so $\bar{\mathbf{v}} \bullet \mathbf{v} \neq 0$, so

$$(\lambda - \bar{\lambda})(\bar{\mathbf{v}} \bullet \mathbf{v}) = 0 \iff \lambda - \bar{\lambda} = 0 \iff \lambda = \bar{\lambda} \iff \lambda \in \mathbb{R} \quad \square$$

Claim 2. For $A \in \mathcal{M}_{mn}(\mathbb{R})$, the eigenvalues of $A^T A$ are real and nonnegative

Proof. We know that for $A \in \mathcal{M}_{mn}$, $A^T A$ symmetric and from previous claim, if $A \in \mathcal{M}_{mn}(\mathbb{R})$, then $A^T A$ is symmetric and real and with real eigenvalues

Let $(\lambda, \mathbf{v})$ be an eigenpair of $A^T A$, with $\mathbf{v}$ chosen so that $\|\mathbf{v}\| = 1$

Norms are functions $V \rightarrow \mathbb{R}_+$, so $\|A\mathbf{v}\|$ and $\|A\mathbf{v}\|^2$ are ≥ 0 and thus

$$\begin{aligned} 0 \leq \|A\mathbf{v}\|^2 &= (A\mathbf{v}) \bullet (A\mathbf{v}) = (A\mathbf{v})^T (A\mathbf{v}) \\ &= \mathbf{v}^T A^T A \mathbf{v} = \mathbf{v}^T (A^T A \mathbf{v}) = \mathbf{v}^T (\lambda \mathbf{v}) \\ &= \lambda (\mathbf{v}^T \mathbf{v}) = \lambda (\mathbf{v} \bullet \mathbf{v}) = \lambda \|\mathbf{v}\|^2 \\ &= \lambda \end{aligned}$$

Claim 3. For $A \in \mathcal{M}_{mn}(\mathbb{R})$, the nonzero eigenvalues of $A^T A$ and AA^T are the same

Proof. Let $(\lambda, \mathbf{v})$ be an eigenpair of $A^T A$ with $\lambda \neq 0$. Then $\mathbf{v} \neq \mathbf{0}$ and

$$A^T A \mathbf{v} = \lambda \mathbf{v} \neq \mathbf{0}$$

Left multiply by A

$$AA^T A \mathbf{v} = \lambda A \mathbf{v}$$

Let $\mathbf{w} = A \mathbf{v}$, we thus have $AA^T \mathbf{w} = \lambda \mathbf{w}$; in other words, $A \mathbf{v}$ is an eigenvector of AA^T corresponding to the (nonzero) eigenvalue λ

The reverse works the same way..



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Singular values

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Summary – Least squares methods

The singular value decomposition (SVD)

Theorem 73 (SVD)

$A \in \mathcal{M}_{mn}$ with singular values $\sigma_1 \geq \dots \geq \sigma_r > 0$ and $\sigma_{r+1} = \dots = \sigma_n = 0$

Then there exists $U \in \mathcal{M}_m$ orthogonal, $V \in \mathcal{M}_n$ orthogonal and a block matrix $\Sigma \in \mathcal{M}_{mn}$ taking the form

$$\Sigma = \begin{pmatrix} D & 0_{r,n-r} \\ 0_{m-r,r} & 0_{m-r,n-r} \end{pmatrix}$$

where

$$D = \text{diag}(\sigma_1, \dots, \sigma_r) \in \mathcal{M}_r$$

such that

$$A = U\Sigma V^T$$

Definition 74

We call a factorisation as in Theorem 73 the **singular value decomposition** of A . The columns of U and V are, respectively, the **left** and **right singular vectors** of A

U and V^T are *rotation* or *reflection* matrices, Σ is a *scaling* matrix

$U \in \mathcal{M}_m$ orthogonal matrix with columns the eigenvectors of AA^T

$V \in \mathcal{M}_n$ orthogonal matrix with columns the eigenvectors of $A^T A$

Outer product form of the SVD

Theorem 75 (Outer product form of the SVD)

$A \in \mathcal{M}_{mn}$ with singular values $\sigma_1 \geq \dots \geq \sigma_r > 0$ and $\sigma_{r+1} = \dots = \sigma_n = 0$, $\mathbf{u}_1, \dots, \mathbf{u}_r$ and $\mathbf{v}_1, \dots, \mathbf{v}_r$, respectively, left and right singular vectors of A corresponding to these singular values

Then

$$A = \sigma_1 \mathbf{u}_1 \mathbf{v}_1^T + \dots + \sigma_r \mathbf{u}_r \mathbf{v}_r^T \quad (2)$$

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Applications of the SVD

Many applications of the SVD, both theoretical and practical..

1. Obtaining a unique solutions to least squares when $A^T A$ singular
2. Image compression

Compressing images

Consider an image (for simplicity, assume in shades of grey). This can be stored in a matrix $A \in \mathcal{M}_{mn}$

Take the SVD of A . Then the small singular values carry information about the regions with little variation and can perhaps be omitted, whereas the large singular values carry information about more “dynamic” regions of the image

Suppose A has r nonzero singular values. For $k \leq r$, let

$$A_k = \sigma_1 \mathbf{u}_1 \mathbf{v}_1^T + \cdots + \sigma_k \mathbf{u}_k \mathbf{v}_k^T$$

For $k = r$ we get the usual outer product form (2)

Load the image using `bmp::read.bmp`

```
my_image = bmp::read.bmp("../CODE/Julien_and_friend_1000x800.bmp")
my_image_g = pixmap::pixmapGrey(my_image)
my_image_g

## Pixmap image
##   Type           : pixmapGrey
##   Size           : 800x1000
##   Resolution     : 1x1
##   Bounding box   : 0 0 1000 800
```



Doing the computations “by hand”

```
M = my_image_g@grey
MTM = t(M) %*% M
# Ensure matrix is symmetric
MTM = (MTM+t(MTM))/2
ev = eigen(MTM)
```

Given the size and nature of the entries, the matrix $M^T M$ is symmetric only to $1e-5$ precision, so we use a little trick to make it symmetric no matter what: take the average of $M^T M$ and its transpose MM^T

Which version of the algorithm to use?

Make zero the eigenvalues that are close to zero (200 out of 1000)

```
ev$values = ev$values*(ev$values>1e-10)
```

Can we use the algorithm for all eigenvalues being distinct or do we have repeated ones?

```
any(duplicated(ev$values[ev$values>1e-10]))
```

```
## [1] FALSE
```

So we can use the standard algorithm

Computing the SVD

```
idx_positive_ev = which(ev$values>1e-10)
sv = sqrt(ev$values[idx_positive_ev])
```

Computing the SVD

Then $D = \text{diag}(\sigma_1, \dots, \sigma_r)$, V is the matrix of normalised eigenvectors in the same order as the σ_i and for $i = 1, \dots, r$

$$\mathbf{u}_i = \frac{1}{\sigma_i} A \mathbf{v}_i$$

ensuring that $\|\mathbf{u}_i\| = 1$

```
D = diag(sv)
V = ev$eigenvectors[idx_positive_ev, idx_positive_ev]
c1 = colSums(V)
for (i in 1:dim(V)[2]) {
  V[,i] = V[,i]/c1[i]
}
```

Computing the SVD

Finally, we compute the $\mathbf{u}_i$'s

```
U = M %*% V %*% diag(1/sv)

## Error in 'M %*% V':
## ! non-conformable arguments

r = length(sv)
im = list(u=U, d=sv, v=V)

## Error:
## ! object 'U' not found
```

Using built-in functions

We can also use the built-in function `svd` to compute the SVD of M

```
M.svd = svd(M)
```

The results are stored in a list with components u , d and v

Make function to recreate an image from the SVD

Given the SVD `im` of an image and a number of singular values to keep `n`, we can recreate the image using the function `compress_image`

We output the new image, but also, the amount of information required to encode this new image, as a percentage of the original image size

```

compress_image = function(im, n) {
  if (n > length(im$d)) {
    # Check that we gave a value of n within range, otherwise
    # just set to the max
    n = length(im$d)
  }
  d_tmp = im$d[1:n]
  u_tmp = im$u[,1:n]
  v_tmp = im$v[,1:n]
  # We store the results in a list (so we can return other information)
  out = list()
  # First, compute the resulting image
  out$img = mat.or.vec(nr = dim(im$u)[1], nc = dim(im$v)[1])
  for (i in 1:n) {
    out$img = out$img + d_tmp[i] * u_tmp[,i] %*% t(v_tmp[,i])
  }
}

```

```

# Values of the "colours" must be between 0 and 1, so we shift and rescale
if (min(min(out$img)) < 0 ) {
  out$img = out$img - min(min(out$img))
}
out$img = out$img / max(max(out$img))
# Store some information: number of points needed and percentage of the
out$nb_pixels_original = dim(im$u)[1] * dim(im$v)[2]
out$nb_pixels_compressed = length(d_tmp) + dim(u_tmp)[1]*dim(u_tmp)[2] +
out$pct_of_original = out$nb_pixels_compressed / out$nb_pixels_original
# Return the result
return(out)
}

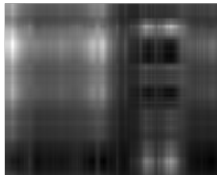
```

Recreating the image

We can now recreate the image using the function `compress_image`

```
new_image = my_image_g
M.svd = svd(M)
M_tmp = compress_image(M.svd, 2)
new_image@grey = M_tmp$img
plot(new_image)
```

Using $n = 2$ singular values



Uses 0.56% of the original information

Using $n = 5$ singular values



Uses 1.41% of the original information

Using $n = 10$ singular values



Uses 2.81% of the original information

Using $n = 20$ singular values



Uses 5.63% of the original information

Using $n = 50$ singular values



Uses 14.07% of the original information

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Computing the SVD (case of $\neq$ eigenvalues)

To compute the SVD, we use the following result

Theorem 76

Let $A \in \mathcal{M}_n$ symmetric, $(\lambda_1, \mathbf{u}_1)$ and $(\lambda_2, \mathbf{u}_2)$ be eigenpairs, $\lambda_1 \neq \lambda_2$. Then $\mathbf{u}_1 \bullet \mathbf{u}_2 = 0$

Proof of Theorem 76

$A \in \mathcal{M}_n$ symmetric, $(\lambda_1, \mathbf{u}_1)$ and $(\lambda_2, \mathbf{u}_2)$ eigenpairs with $\lambda_1 \neq \lambda_2$

$$\begin{aligned}\lambda_1(\mathbf{v}_1 \bullet \mathbf{v}_2) &= (\lambda_1 \mathbf{v}_1) \bullet \mathbf{v}_2 \\ &= A\mathbf{v}_1 \bullet \mathbf{v}_2 \\ &= (A\mathbf{v}_1)^T \mathbf{v}_2 \\ &= \mathbf{v}_1^T A^T \mathbf{v}_2 \\ &= \mathbf{v}_1^T (A\mathbf{v}_2) \quad [A \text{ symmetric so } A^T = A] \\ &= \mathbf{v}_1^T (\lambda_2 \mathbf{v}_2) \\ &= \lambda_2(\mathbf{v}_1^T \mathbf{v}_2) \\ &= \lambda_2(\mathbf{v}_1 \bullet \mathbf{v}_2)\end{aligned}$$

So $(\lambda_1 - \lambda_2)(\mathbf{v}_1 \bullet \mathbf{v}_2) = 0$. But $\lambda_1 \neq \lambda_2$, so $\mathbf{v}_1 \bullet \mathbf{v}_2 = 0$



Computing the SVD (case of $\neq$ eigenvalues)

If all eigenvalues of $A^T A$ (or AA^T) are distinct, we can use Theorem 76

1. Compute $A^T A \in \mathcal{M}_n$
2. Compute eigenvalues $\lambda_1, \dots, \lambda_n$ of $A^T A$; order them as $\lambda_1 > \dots > \lambda_n \geq 0$ ($>$ not $\geq$ since $\neq$)
3. Compute singular values $\sigma_1 = \sqrt{\lambda_1}, \dots, \sigma_n = \sqrt{\lambda_n}$
4. Diagonal matrix D in Σ is either in $\mathcal{M}_n$ (if $\sigma_n > 0$) or in $\mathcal{M}_{n-1}$ (if $\sigma_n = 0$)

5. Since eigenvalues are distinct, Theorem 76 $\implies$ eigenvectors are orthogonal set. Compute these eigenvectors in the same order as the eigenvalues
6. Normalise them and use them to make the matrix V , i.e., $V = [\mathbf{v}_1 \cdots \mathbf{v}_n]$
7. To find the $\mathbf{u}_i$, compute, for $i = 1, \dots, r$,

$$\mathbf{u}_i = \frac{1}{\sigma_i} A \mathbf{v}_i$$

and ensure that $\|\mathbf{u}_i\| = 1$

Computing the SVD (case where some eigenvalues are $=$)

1. Compute $A^T A \in \mathcal{M}_n$
2. Compute eigenvalues $\lambda_1, \dots, \lambda_n$ of $A^T A$; order them as $\lambda_1 \geq \dots \geq \lambda_n \geq 0$
3. Compute singular values $\sigma_1 = \sqrt{\lambda_1}, \dots, \sigma_n = \sqrt{\lambda_n}$, with $r \leq n$ the index of the last positive singular value
4. For eigenvalues that are distinct, proceed as before
5. For eigenvalues with multiplicity > 1 , we need to ensure that the resulting eigenvectors are LI *and* orthogonal

Dealing with eigenvalues with multiplicity > 1

When an eigenvalue has (algebraic) multiplicity > 1 , e.g., characteristic polynomial contains a factor like $(\lambda - 2)^2$, things can become a little bit more complicated

The proper way to deal with this involves the so-called Jordan Normal Form (another matrix decomposition)

In short: not all square matrices are diagonalisable, but all square matrices admit a JNF

Sometimes, we can find several LI eigenvectors associated to the same eigenvalue. Check this. If not, need to use the following

Definition 77 (Generalised eigenvectors)

The vector $\mathbf{x} \neq \mathbf{0}$ is a **generalized eigenvector** of rank m of $A \in \mathcal{M}_n$ corresponding to eigenvalue λ if

$$(A - \lambda \mathbb{I})^m \mathbf{x} = \mathbf{0}$$

but

$$(A - \lambda \mathbb{I})^{m-1} \mathbf{x} \neq \mathbf{0}$$

Procedure for generalised eigenvectors

$A \in \mathcal{M}_n$ and assume λ eigenvalue with algebraic multiplicity k

Find $\mathbf{v}_1$, "classic" eigenvector, i.e., $\mathbf{v}_1 \neq \mathbf{0}$ s.t. $(A - \lambda\mathbb{I})\mathbf{v}_1 = \mathbf{0}$

Find generalised eigenvector $\mathbf{v}_2$ of rank 2 by solving for $\mathbf{v}_2 \neq \mathbf{0}$,

$$(A - \lambda\mathbb{I})\mathbf{v}_2 = \mathbf{v}_1$$

...

Find generalised eigenvector $\mathbf{v}_k$ of rank k by solving for $\mathbf{v}_k \neq \mathbf{0}$,

$$(A - \lambda\mathbb{I})\mathbf{v}_k = \mathbf{v}_{k-1}$$

Then $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \dots, \mathbf{v}_k\}$ LI

Back to the normal procedure

With the LI eigenvectors $\{\mathbf{v}_1, \dots, \mathbf{v}_k\}$ corresponding to λ

Apply Gram-Schmidt to get orthogonal set

For all eigenvalues with multiplicity > 1 , check that you either have LI eigenvectors or do what we just did

When you are done, be back on your merry way to step 6 in the case where eigenvalues are all $\neq$

I am caricaturing a little here: there can be cases that do not work exactly like this, but this is general enough..

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Pseudoinverse of a matrix

Definition 78 (Pseudoinverse)

$A = U\Sigma V^T$ an SVD for $A \in \mathcal{M}_{mn}$, where

$$\Sigma = \begin{pmatrix} D & 0 \\ 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \text{ with } D = \text{diag}(\sigma_1, \dots, \sigma_r)$$

(D contains the nonzero singular values of A ordered as usual)

The **pseudoinverse** (or **Moore-Penrose inverse**) of A is $A^+ \in \mathcal{M}_{nm}$ given by

$$A^+ = V\Sigma^+ U^T$$

with

$$\Sigma^+ = \begin{pmatrix} D^{-1} & 0 \\ 0 & 0 \end{pmatrix} \in \mathcal{M}_{nm}$$

Least squares revisited

Theorem 79

Let $A \in \mathcal{M}_{mn}$, $\mathbf{x} \in \mathbb{R}^n$ and $\mathbf{b} \in \mathbb{R}^m$. The least squares problem $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$ has a unique least squares solution $\tilde{\mathbf{x}}$ of minimal length (closest to the origin) given by

$$\tilde{\mathbf{x}} = A^+ \mathbf{b}$$

where A^+ is the pseudoinverse of A

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The least squares problem

Problem Statement:

Given a system $A\mathbf{x} = \mathbf{b}$ where $A \in \mathcal{M}_{mn}$, $\mathbf{x} \in \mathbb{R}^n$, $\mathbf{b} \in \mathbb{R}^m$ (typically $m > n$), find $\tilde{\mathbf{x}}$ that minimizes

$$\|\mathbf{b} - A\mathbf{x}\|^2 = \sum_{i=1}^m (b_i - \sum_{j=1}^n A_{ij}x_j)^2$$

Geometric interpretation: Find the vector $A\tilde{\mathbf{x}}$ in the column space of A that is closest to $\mathbf{b}$

Solution: $A\tilde{\mathbf{x}} = \text{proj}_{\text{col}(A)}(\mathbf{b})$

Method 1: Normal equations

The normal equations:

$$A^T A \tilde{\mathbf{x}} = A^T \mathbf{b}$$

When this works:

- ▶ Always has at least one solution
- ▶ Any solution $\tilde{\mathbf{x}}$ to the normal equations is a least squares solution

Computational issues:

- ▶ Forming $A^T A$ can be numerically unstable
- ▶ Condition number of $A^T A$ is the square of the condition number of A
- ▶ Still useful for theoretical analysis

Method 2: when A Has linearly independent columns

Condition: $A \in \mathcal{M}_{mn}$ has linearly independent columns

Then: $A^T A$ is invertible and the least squares solution is **unique**

$$\tilde{\mathbf{x}} = (A^T A)^{-1} A^T \mathbf{b}$$

Properties:

- ▶ $A^T A \in \mathcal{M}_n$ is square, symmetric, and positive definite
- ▶ $(A^T A)^{-1} A^T$ is called the *left pseudoinverse* of A
- ▶ This gives the unique least squares solution

Drawback: Computing $(A^T A)^{-1}$ directly can be numerically unstable

Method 3: QR factorization

QR Factorization: If $A \in \mathcal{M}_{mn}$ has linearly independent columns, then

$$A = QR$$

where $Q \in \mathcal{M}_{mn}$ has orthonormal columns and $R \in \mathcal{M}_n$ is upper triangular and nonsingular

Least squares solution:

$$\tilde{\mathbf{x}} = R^{-1} Q^T \mathbf{b}$$

Advantages:

- ▶ More numerically stable than forming $A^T A$
- ▶ R is upper triangular $\Rightarrow$ solving $R\tilde{\mathbf{x}} = Q^T \mathbf{b}$ by back substitution
- ▶ Condition number of R equals condition number of A
- ▶ Gram-Schmidt or Householder reflections can compute QR factorization

Method 4: Singular Value Decomposition (SVD)

SVD: For any $A \in \mathcal{M}_{mn}$,

$$A = U\Sigma V^T$$

where $U \in \mathcal{M}_m$ orthogonal, $V \in \mathcal{M}_n$ orthogonal, $\Sigma \in \mathcal{M}_{mn}$ with $\Sigma_{ij} = \sigma_i \geq 0$ (singular values)

Pseudoinverse: $A^+ = V\Sigma^+U^T$ where Σ^+ has $(\Sigma^+)_{ij} = 1/\sigma_i$ if $\sigma_i > 0$, else 0

Least squares solution:

$$\tilde{\mathbf{x}} = A^+ \mathbf{b}$$

Key advantages:

- ▶ Works for *any* matrix A (even when columns are linearly dependent)
- ▶ Gives the solution of *minimal length* when multiple solutions exist
- ▶ Most numerically stable method
- ▶ Reveals the rank of A through the number of non-zero singular values

When to use which method

Method	When to use	Advantages/Drawbacks
Normal equations	Theory, small problems	Simple, but unstable
$(A^T A)^{-1} A^T$	A has LI columns	Explicit formula, unstable
QR Factorization	A has LI columns	Stable, efficient
SVD	Any A , rank-deficient	Most stable, handles all cases

Use QR for well-conditioned problems with LI columns, SVD for rank-deficient or ill-conditioned problems